

Factors affecting inferences on natural mortality and associated environmental effects in state-space age-structured assessment models

Timothy J. Miller: ORCID ID 0000-0003-1411-1206; corresponding author: timothy.j.miller@noaa.gov; Northeast Fisheries Science Center, Woods Hole Laboratory, 166 Water Street, Woods Hole, MA 02543 USA

Gregory L. Britten: ORCID ID 0000-0003-1391-9086; Biology Department, Woods Hole Oceanographic Institution, 266 Woods Hole Rd. Woods Hole, MA, USA

Elizabeth N. Brooks: ORCID ID 0000-0002-9142-4372; Northeast Fisheries Science Center, Woods Hole Laboratory, 166 Water Street, Woods Hole, MA 02543 USA

Gavin Fay: ORCID ID 0000-0003-0425-9952; Department of Fisheries Oceanography, School for Marine Science and Technology, University of Massachusetts Dartmouth, 836 S Rodney French Boulevard, New Bedford, MA 02740, USA

Alexander C. Hansell: ORCID ID 0000-0001-7827-1749; Northeast Fisheries Science Center, Woods Hole Laboratory, 166 Water Street, Woods Hole, MA 02543 USA

Christopher M. Legault: ORCID ID 0000-0002-0328-1376; Northeast Fisheries Science Center, Woods Hole Laboratory, 166 Water Street, Woods Hole, MA 02543 USA

Brandon Muffley: ORCID ID 0009-0005-8681-0489; Mid-Atlantic Fishery Management Council, 800 North State Street, Suite 201, Dover, DE 19901 USA

John Wiedenmann: ORCID ID 0000-0001-7622-9053; Department of Ecology, Evolution, and Natural Resources, Rutgers University, 14 College Farm Rd W, New Brunswick, NJ 08901 USA

Abstract

Treatment of natural mortality is a major consideration in assessment models and state-space approaches allow estimation of temporal variation in this mortality rate as well as effects of specific covariates. However, there has been no investigation of the reliability of inferences made from state-space assessment models when there is process error or covariate effects on natural mortality. We conducted a large-scale simulation study with operating models simulating data assuming alternative levels of observation error, types and magnitude of process error, and magnitude of covariate effects on natural mortality. We fit estimating models to the simulated data with alternative assumptions regarding the inclusion of covariate effects, estimation of the median natural mortality rate, and type of process error. We found estimating covariate effects on natural mortality required ideal scenarios with lower observation uncertainty, contrast in fishing pressure, and higher covariate variability, but the source of process error could be mis-specified. Estimating annual natural mortality rates as random effects was also challenging, but spawning stock biomass and fishing mortality was reliable in a wide range of scenarios.

keywords: state-space assessment models, time-varying natural mortality, bias, AIC

Introduction

State-space population models are now used widely for fisheries stock assessment in Europe, the United States, and Canada (Nielsen and Berg 2014; Cadigan 2016; Pedersen and Berg 2017; Stock and Miller 2021). Because application of these methods are considered best practice and recommended for the next generation of stock assessment models (Hoyle et al. 2022; Punt 2023), it is expected their use will only grow globally. An appeal of state-space models lies in their separation of sources of biological and measurement variability by treating temporal variation in population characteristics as latent stochastic processes with periodic observations measured with error. Through advances in computational capacity, we can use sophisticated numerical approaches to estimate parameters of these models as a combination of fixed and random effects (Thorson and Minto 2015; Kristensen et al. 2016).

State-space stock assessment models with non-linear functions of latent processes and numerous observation types with different probability distributions, represent one of the most complex classes of state-space models. Our understanding of the effects of various factors on reliability of inferences from state-space assessment models is growing (Li et al. 2024; Miller et al. 2026). The importance of temporal contrast in population size and fishing mortality (F) and quality of data used to fit both traditional and state-space assessment models is known (Magnusson and Hilborn 2007; Miller et al. 2026).

The effects of temporal variation in recruitment via undefined or explicit environmental factors have been extensively investigated in both traditional assessment models and state-space models (Myers 1998; Haltuch and Punt 2011; Johnson et al. 2016; Miller et al. 2016). Reliability of estimating environmental and spawning stock biomass (SSB) effects on recruitment in state-space assessment models requires a combination of strong effects, informative age-composition data, contrast in the environmental covariate, low variability of recruitment deviations, and contrast in SSB (Britten et al. 2026; Miller et al. 2026).

A critical aspect of fisheries assessment models and their use in management is short-term projections that are used to determine catch advice. While understanding drivers of recruitment is important, particularly for subsequent effects on reference points, recruitment in short-term projections typically has little impact on the exploitable biomass in the first few projection years. However, assumptions for natural mortality have immediate and larger effects on projected biomass because they affect the abundances at older age classes at the end of the data time series that constitute SSB and catch (Brodziak et al. 2008; Stock et al. 2021).

Estimation of the natural mortality rate (M) is possible in many scenarios (Lee et al. 2011; Miller and Hyun 2018; Miller et al. 2026). Because of the effects of M on both biological reference points and short-term projections, better understanding sources of variation in M could contribute to more accurate estimation of abundance and productivity and, therefore, improved management. Temporal variation in M is less studied than recruitment, but its importance for explaining variability in observations has been demonstrated in state-space assessment models for stocks of Atlantic cod and yellowtail flounder (e.g., Cadigan 2016; Stock et al. 2021). Furthermore, Deriso et al. (2008) demonstrated the importance of several factors affecting M annually for Pacific herring.

Assessment models could include temporal variation in many aspects of the population’s dynamics or how observations are related to the population. For example, the Woods Hole Assessment Model (WHAM) can include process errors treated as random effects for annual changes in cohort abundance (hereafter referred to as apparent survival), catchability for indices of abundance, selectivity of fishing fleets or indices, movement between regions, or in M (Stock and Miller 2021; Miller et al. 2025). However, mis-specifying the type of temporal variation could lead to biased estimation of population size and stock status and, therefore, poor fisheries management decisions (Legault and Palmer 2016; Szuwalski et al. 2018). Studies of the reliability of identifying temporal variability in M are limited. Miller et al. (2026) found AIC could accurately distinguish process errors in apparent survival but not for those specifically due to M except when uncertainty in population observations (indices, catch, and age-composition data) was low and there was greater temporal variation in M . Li et al. (2024) found that including more sources of process error than existed in the operating model (OM) was a better model-building approach than excluding them *a priori*.

Here, we present results from a simulation study with OM’s varying by degree of observation-error uncertainty, sources of process error, fishing history, temporal variation in environmental covariates, and magnitude of the covariate effect on M . We fit the simulated observations from these OM’s with estimating models (EM’s) that make alternative assumptions for sources of process error and whether median M and covariate effects were estimated. We evaluated the effects of these factors on 1) convergence of fitted models; 2) whether Akaike’s information criterion (AIC) can determine the correct source of process error and correct assumption about covariate effects on M ; 3) reliability of median M and covariate effect estimation; and 4) reliability of terminal year M and SSB estimation.

Methods

Our analyses used WHAM to construct both OM’s and EM’s (Miller and Stock 2020; Stock and Miller 2021; Miller et al. 2025). WHAM has been used extensively to configure OM’s and EM’s for several other simulation studies (Stock et al. 2021; Legault et al. 2023; Li et al. 2024, 2026a; Britten et al. 2026) and is used to assess many commercially important stocks in the Northeast U.S. (e.g., NEFSC 2022a, 2022b; NEFSC 2024). We used version 1.0.6.9000 (commit 77bbd94) to generate all results.

The factors defining the configuration of each of the 288 OM’s, described in detail in subsequent sections, include source of process error (3 levels), index and catch observation uncertainty (2 levels), environmental covariate uncertainty (2 levels), temporal variation in the latent environmental covariate (4 levels), size of the covariate effect on M (3 levels), and fishing history (2 levels). We simulated 100 populations and covariates with process errors and data sets given the realized populations and covariates for each OM.

For each simulated data set we fit a set of 12 EM’s. The factors that distinguish the EM’s, also described in detail below, include source of population process error type (3 levels), whether median M was estimated or assumed known (2 levels), and whether the environmental covariate effect on M was estimated or not (2 levels).

The sources of population process error that were used in the OM_s or assumed in the EM_s were on recruitment only (R), recruitment and apparent survival (R+S), or recruitment and M (R+M). We did not use the log-normal bias-correction feature for process errors or observations described by Stock and Miller (2021) for OM_s and EM_s. Using this correction with random effects and estimation of fixed effects via marginal likelihood can result in substantial bias in assessment output such as recruitment and SSB (Li et al. 2026b). Simulations were all carried out on the University of Massachusetts Green High-Performance Computing Cluster. Code for completing the simulations and summarizing results can be found at https://github.com/timjmiller/SSRTWG/tree/main/ECOV_study/mortality.

Operating models

Environmental covariate

In WHAM, environmental covariates are modeled as state-space processes with annual observations of the true latent covariate (Miller et al. 2016; Stock and Miller 2021). In our simulations, we assumed the latent covariate to be a stationary first order autoregressive (AR1) process,

$$X_y|X_{y-1} \sim N\left(\mu_E(1 - \rho_E) + \rho_EX_{y-1}, (1 - \rho_E^2)\sigma_E^2\right),$$

with marginal mean $\mu_E = 0$ and variance σ_E^2 . The four configurations of the latent environmental covariate in the OM_s assume one of two values for the marginal standard deviation $\sigma_E \in \{0.1, 0.5\}$ and for the autocorrelation parameter $\rho_E \in \{0, 0.5\}$.

WHAM treats the observations of the latent environmental covariate (x_y) as unbiased and normal conditional on the true covariate X_y ,

$$x_y|X_y \sim N(X_y, \sigma_e^2).$$

The standard deviation of the environmental observations in the OM_s was one of two values $\sigma_e \in \{0.1, 0.5\}$. Figure S1 provides example simulations of the latent covariate and observations under the alternative configurations.

Population

Many of the characteristics of the population biology and structure including the age classes (10 age classes: 1 to 10+), time span (40 years), maturity (Figure S2, top left), growth (Figure S2, top right), time of spawning (1/4 of the year), and recruitment (Figure S2, bottom right) were identical to Miller et al. (2026). The maturity at age was a logistic function with age at 50% maturity (a_{50}) = 2.89 and slope = 0.88. Weight-at-age was derived from a von Bertalanffy growth function where $t_0 = 0$, $L_\infty = 85$, and $k = 0.3$, and a length-weight relationship

$$W_a = \theta_1 L_a^{\theta_2},$$

where $\theta_1 = e^{-12.1}$ and $\theta_2 = 3.2$.

In WHAM, the general model for M in year y is a log-linear function of both covariate effects X_y and process errors $\varepsilon_{M,y}$ and a parameter β_M that defines median M ,

$$\log M_y = \beta_M + \beta_E X_y + \varepsilon_{M,y},$$

where the process errors are modeled as random effects. The general model for the random effects is an AR1 Gaussian distribution,

$$\varepsilon_{M,y} | \varepsilon_{M,y-1} \sim N(\varepsilon_{M,y-1}, (1 - \rho_M^2) \sigma_M^2)$$

(Stock and Miller 2021), but we assumed $\rho_M = 0$ in our R+M OMs such that there is no autocorrelation. We assumed the median M , $e^{\beta_M} = 0.2$, was constant across ages. For R and R+S OMs and EMS, $\varepsilon_{M,y} = 0$. For all R+M OMs, we assumed the standard deviation $\sigma_M = 0.3$, which was estimated in the R+M EMS. The covariate effect was one of 3 alternative values in the OMs, $\beta_E \in \{0, 0.25, 0.5\}$. The parameters defining the simulated covariate time series, size of the covariate effect, and any M random effects resulted in a range of different levels of variation in annual M values (Figure S3).

We assumed expected recruitment each year was from a Beverton–Holt stock-recruit relationship (SRR)

$$R_y = \frac{aSSB_{y-1}}{1 + bSSB_{y-1}}.$$

All biological inputs to calculations of SSB per recruit (i.e., weight, maturity, and M at age) were constant in the R and R+S OMs without covariate effects on M . Therefore, steepness and equilibrium unfished recruitment were also constant over the time period for those OMs (Miller and Brooks 2021). As in Miller et al. (2026), our assumed biological inputs and selectivity (defined below) with constant M resulted in the equilibrium F that reduces SSB per recruit to 40% of the unfished level being $F_{40\%} = 0.348$. With an assumed unfished recruitment of $R_0 = e^{10}$, setting $F_{MSY} = F_{40\%}$ results in a steepness of 0.69 and $a = 0.60$ and $b = 2.4 \times 10^{-5}$. For R+M OMs and all OMs with covariate effects on M , steepness was not constant but we used the same a and b parameters as other OMs which equates to a steepness and R_0 at the median (or mean on log-scale) of the time series models for M and the covariate.

We also used the same two fishing scenarios as Miller et al. (2026) for OMs. In the first scenario, the stock experienced overfishing at $2.5F_{MSY}$ for the first 20 years followed by fishing at F_{MSY} for the last 20 years (denoted $2.5F_{MSY} \rightarrow F_{MSY}$). In the second scenario, the stock was fished at F_{MSY} for the entire time period (40 years). The magnitude of the overfishing assumptions was intended to reflect estimates of overfishing for Northeast US groundfish stocks from Wiedenmann et al. (2019).

We configured all R, R+S, and R+M OMs with uncorrelated random effects on recruitment with standard deviation on log(recruitment) $\sigma_R = 0.5$. Miller et al. (2026) used this same assumption for R+M OMs and other OMs with fishery selectivity and index catchability process errors. For R+S OMs, apparent survival process errors were uncorrelated with $\sigma_{2+} = 0.3$. These standard deviations were on the lower end of the range of values estimated for groundfish stocks in the NE US (see Table S1 in Britten et al. 2026).

Catch and index observations

We defined the generation of observations of aggregate (total combined across ages) catch and indices and corresponding age-composition observations identical to Miller et al. (2026). There was a single fleet operating year round for catch observations with logistic selectivity defined with $a_{50} = 5$ and slope = 1 (Figure S2, bottom left). Observations were generated for all 40 years of the model. There were two index time series intended to represent fishery-independent surveys occurring in the spring (0.25 way through the year) and the fall (0.75 way through the year). We assumed catchability of both surveys to be 0.3.

WHAM treats the aggregate catch and index observations as log-normal and we assumed the standard deviation parameter was 0.1 for all annual catch observations. We assumed catch and index age-composition observations were generated from a logistic-normal distribution where errors on the multivariate normal scale were independent (Aitchison and Shen 1980; Stock and Miller 2021; Trijoulet et al. 2023). The standard deviation parameter was also constant across ages. There were two levels of observation uncertainty for aggregate indices and age-composition data for both indices and catch. A low-uncertainty specification assumed the standard deviation parameter was 0.1 for all annual aggregate index observations and the standard deviation of the logistic-normal for all age-composition observations was 0.3. In the high-uncertainty specification the standard deviation parameter for the annual aggregate index observations was 0.4 and that for the age-composition observations was 1.5.

Estimating models

There were three factors defining the configuration of each EM: 1) whether β_M was estimated or assumed known; 2) whether an environmental effect β_E was estimated or not; and 3) whether the process errors were assumed on recruitment only (R), recruitment and apparent survival (R+S), or recruitment and M (R+M). We fit each EM to each of 100 simulated data sets from each OM. The configuration of the process errors in the EMs generally matched the corresponding options in the OMs. For example, random effects were assumed uncorrelated for R EMs and R OMs and for R+S EMs and R+S OMs. Although unintended, R+M EMs were configured to estimate the correlation of M random effects although they were simulated without correlation in the R+M OMs. The environmental covariate observations were included in all EMs, whether effects on M were estimated or not, to ensure comparability of AIC. All fixed-effects parameters for selectivity, catchability, fully-selected F , mean recruitment, initial abundance at age, and standard deviations for logistic-normal age-composition distributions were estimated. Any process-error variance parameters for recruitment, apparent survival, and M were also estimated. For all EMs, the standard deviation parameters for environmental covariates and aggregate catch and indices were assumed known at the true value.

Measures of reliability

EM convergence

We measured the frequency of convergence when fitting each EM to the simulated data sets for each OM. There are various ways to assess convergence of the fit (e.g., Carvalho et al. 2021) but we defined successful convergence as the Hessian of the marginal log-likelihood being invertible and providing variance estimates for the fixed effects parameters as recommended by Miller et al. (2026).

AIC for model selection

We measured the frequency of correct model selection using marginal AIC, known to be appropriate for mixed-effects models specifically when the analyst is interested in fixed effects rather than random effects (Vaida and Blanchard 2005). Other studies have shown the utility of marginal AIC in distinguishing process error and other model structures for state-space assessment models applied to a particular stock (Miller and Hyun 2018; Stock and Miller 2021).

For a given OM, the set of EMs that were compared all made the same assumption about β_M (estimated or treated as known at the true value). For a given EM, the marginal AIC is a function of the marginal log-likelihood maximized with respect to the estimated fixed effects (θ) in the EM and the number of estimated fixed effects $n(\theta)$,

$$\text{AIC} = -2 [\text{argmax}_{\theta} \log L(\theta) - n(\theta)].$$

All EM fits that successfully completed the optimization were used for this set of analyses. We did not condition on convergence as defined above because some lack of convergence would be expected for the correct behavior of more complicated models that include process errors that did not exist in the OM. For example, R+M EMs fit to R OMs would be expected to estimate no variance in the M random effects and the estimated variance parameter going to zero would cause poor convergence but have the same marginal log-likelihood (with more fixed effects) and therefore higher AIC as expected. The correct EM made the correct assumption for the source of process errors (R, R+S, R+M) and either included a covariate effect on M when an effect was simulated ($\beta_E \in \{0.25, 0.5\}$) or did not include an effect when one was not simulated ($\beta_E = 0$).

Parameter estimation bias and accuracy

All results here were based on OM simulations with fits that satisfied the Hessian-based convergence criterion described above. We used this conditioning to reflect how practitioners would proceed in analyses of model fits with real assessment data.

We focused on statistical behavior of estimators of the covariate effect on M ($\hat{\beta}_E$); the median M parameter ($\hat{\beta}_M$); and terminal year M , SSB, and fully-selected fishing mortality

(F). In preliminary analyses we examined results for the estimators of all the annual values for M , SSB and F over the whole time series, but we found no appreciable differences in patterns across the various factors defining the OM and EMs. Furthermore, because results for terminal year F were generally inversely related to those for SSB, they are not discussed further but provided in the Supplemental Materials.

For each EM fit to a given simulated data set, we calculated errors of $\hat{\beta}_E$ and $\hat{\beta}_M$, and the Hessian-based standard error estimators of these parameters ($\widehat{SE}(\hat{\beta}_E)$ and $\widehat{SE}(\hat{\beta}_M)$) as the difference between the estimate and the true value. We defined the true standard errors as the standard deviation of estimates across converged fits of a given EM and OM combination. We calculated relative errors for terminal year M , SSB, and F . For a given attribute θ_i , the relative error for an estimate from an EM fit to a given simulated data set i ,

$$\text{RE}_i(\hat{\theta}_i) = \frac{\hat{\theta}_i - \theta_i}{\theta_i}. \quad (1)$$

To measure accuracy of terminal year M , SSB, and F , we calculated the root mean square error (RMSE). Again defining θ as one of these attributes,

$$\text{RMSE}(\hat{\theta}) = \sqrt{\frac{1}{n_c} \sum_{i=1}^{n_c} (\hat{\theta}_i - \theta_i)^2},$$

where $n_c \leq 100$ is the number of simulations with converged fits of a given EM and OM combination. The true values for terminal year SSB and M (in R+M OMs and any OM with covariate effects on M) varied among simulations. Finally, we calculated 95% confidence intervals (CIs) for $\hat{\beta}_E$ and $\hat{\beta}_M$ using Hessian-based standard error estimates for converged EMs that estimated these parameters in each OM simulation and recorded whether they included the true value.

Unbiased estimation of terminal year M can occur for EMs that assume no temporal variation in M because the assumed or estimated β_M parameter can be equal to or near the median of the simulated true terminal year values. In this case, the unbiasedness is an artifact of the OM assumptions, where the mean of the M process error and covariate distributions equals 0, rather than the estimate of terminal year M tracking the true value. Therefore, we also calculated the correlation of estimates and simulated values for terminal year M for a given EM and OM combination,

$$\text{Cor}(\widehat{M}, M) = \frac{\text{Cov}(\widehat{M}, M)}{\text{SD}(\widehat{M}) \text{SD}(M)}.$$

For R+M OMs and any other OMs where there were covariate effects on M , high correlation (approaching 1) along with median relative errors close to 0 indicates ability of the EM to estimate terminal year M . If correlation is near 0, this indicates inability to estimate terminal year M . Note also that the correlation is undefined when either the estimated or true value are constant across simulations because the corresponding standard deviations are 0. This applies to R and R+S EMs that assumed β_M to be known and $\beta_E = 0$, and R and to R+S

OMs where $\beta_E = 0$. We also did not use calculated correlations for EMs when there were only two converged fits because they are uninformative (can only take on values of -1 or 1). We made the same correlation calculations for SSB because these estimates and true values also varied across simulations. There may be correspondence of RMSE and the correlation results for M and SSB, but RMSE is a function of both bias and variance whereas higher (or better) correlation can occur regardless of bias and has a unitless scale (-1 to 1) that facilitates comparison across parameters and EM-OM combinations.

Summarizing results across OM and EM attributes

There were numerous OM and EM attributes across all simulation scenarios and, like Miller et al. (2026), we used two methods to summarize the major factors explaining differences in results for each measure of reliability. First, we fit regression models with the responses as the measures of reliability described above and the predictor variables were defined based on OM and EM attributes (e.g., MacKinnon et al. 1995; Wang et al. 2017; Harwell et al. 2018). We used logistic regression for binary indicators of convergence, AIC-based selection of the appropriate assumption of the covariate effect on M , and indicators of CI inclusion. For indicators of AIC-based selection of EM process error source (multiple categories), we performed multinomial regressions. For other measures of reliability we fit ordinary linear regression models. Relative errors of terminal year M , SSB, and F (Eq. 1) are bounded below at -1, so we used a transformation of these values

$$f(\hat{\theta}_i) = \log [\text{RE}(\hat{\theta}_i) + 1]. \quad (2)$$

We omitted fits where estimated terminal year SSB, M , or F was equal to zero ($\text{RE} = -1$) because of the undefined transformation. RMSE is bounded below at 0 so we used a log transformation for responses in corresponding regressions. We did not use any transformation for the correlation of estimated and true values for terminal year M and SSB. Note there was only one RMSE and correlation calculated for an EM from all simulation fits that converged from a given OM scenario. For all regressions we fit separate models with just individual OM and EM factors included, all factors combined, with all second order interactions, and with all third order interactions. For the multinomial regression, we used the `vglm` function from the VGAM package (Yee 2008; Yee 2015). We calculated percent reduction of residual deviance (from the null model with no factors) for each of the regression fits. As Miller et al. (2026) noted, there is a lack of independence of the results for each EM fitted to the same simulated data set of a given OM and therefore we did not perform formal statistical analyses of effects of OM and EM attributes.

For the second summarization method, we used classification and regression trees (Breiman et al. 1984) to illustrate the primary OM and EM attributes and interactions that partition the values for each measure of reliability (e.g., Gonzalez et al. 2018; Collier et al. 2022). We used classification trees for categorical measures (convergence, AIC model selection, and indicators of CI inclusion) and regression trees for the other measures with continuous scales (errors, relative error, RMSE, and correlation). The response variables were the same as the regressions for the deviance reduction analyses. We used the `rpart` function in the

rpart package (Therneau and Atkinson 2025) to fit trees. Full trees were determined using default settings except that we increased the number of cross-validations to 100. For one classification tree fitted to AIC selection of process error configuration results for R+S OMs, we had to make a small change to the default prior probabilities (the proportions of each class in the data) used in the criterion on whether to allow branches from a given node because the default priors would not produce any branches. For clarity, we manually pruned the full trees to show just the primary branches.

All OM and EM factors we used to examine reductions in deviance and regression trees are given in Table S1. We provide more detailed results for each EM and OM configuration in the Supplemental Materials using similar methods to Miller et al. (2026). The detailed results present probability of convergence, probability of each EM having lowest AIC, median error of β_M and β_E and corresponding standard error estimates, and median relative error and RMSE for terminal year SSB, F , and M . There are also detailed results for correlation of estimates and true values for terminal year M and SSB.

Results

For many of the measures of reliability we found that the factors that provided the greatest reduction in deviance for fitted regression models were the same as those that defined the primary branches of the classification and regression trees. The trees also explain which levels of a given factor provide better or worse measures of reliability. Therefore, we provide all the results for deviance reduction of regression models in the Supplemental Materials and do not discuss them further.

EM Convergence

EM process error assumption determined the primary branches of trees for each OM process error configuration (Figure 1). Overall convergence was best for R+S OMs, but better convergence occurred when the process error was correct for R and R+S OMs. For R+M OMs, R EMs converged well (88%), but good convergence of R+M EMs occurred for any true process error source if the OMs also had constant fishing pressure and EMs assumed median M parameter (β_M) to be known. All branches based on observation error of covariates or other assessment data (indices and age composition) showed better convergence with more precise observations. Better convergence also occurred when EMs assumed no covariate effects (regardless of whether the OM simulated them), when EMs assumed median M was known, and when OMs assumed greater temporal variability in the true environmental covariate.

AIC performance

Process error source selection

AIC performed poorly in selecting the correct process error for R+M OM s where lowest AIC occurred for the simpler R EM s (Figure 2). However, accuracy of AIC-based selection was high for R and R+S OM s. For R+S OM s, mis-classification occurred to R EM s with the lowest AIC when OM s had higher error in population observations. For R OM s, there was a small decrease in accuracy when the OM s included the largest covariate effect on M , but in those scenarios, AIC was more accurate for the process error assumption when the EM s also incorrectly assumed no covariate effect.

Covariate effect selection

The factors defining the primary branches of classification trees for accuracy of AIC-based model selection depended on the magnitude of the true effect assumed in the OM (Figure 3). When OM s had no covariate effect ($\beta_E = 0$) the OM process error type determined the primary branches whereas level of covariate observation error determined the primary branches when $\beta_E > 0$. Accuracy was high overall for OM s with no covariate effect (88%) (low Type I error) and low when there was a covariate effect (23% and 35% for OM s with $\beta_E = 0.25$ and 0.5 , respectively) (high Type II error), but higher accuracy occurred for certain combinations of OM attributes. When the true covariate effect was greatest ($\beta_E = 0.5$), AIC accuracy was 91% for EM s fit to OM s with high temporal variability in the covariate and low error in population and covariate observations regardless of whether the EM process error was correct. However, when the covariate effect was weaker ($\beta_E = 0.25$), high accuracy only occurred for a subset of those OM s with R or R+M process errors (76%), and the further conditioning on OM s with high autocorrelation of the covariate provided higher accuracy (86%). When there was no covariate effect, AIC accuracy was best for R OM s (95%), and for R+S and R+M OM s, accuracy was improved if the OM s also had lower error in population observations and the EM process error assumption was correct (85%).

Median natural mortality rate inferences

Estimation bias

Median errors for $\hat{\beta}_M$ were close to 0 across all simulations for R and R+M OM s (-0.06 to -0.03), but not for R+S OM s (-0.45; Figure 4). Median errors were closer to zero when there was a change in fishing pressure for R+S and R+M OM s. Median errors closer to zero occurred with more precise population observations for all OM process error sources. For R OM s with constant fishing pressure, EM s that assumed no covariate effect and the correct process error type indicated worse bias when the OM simulated the strongest covariate effect ($\beta_E = 0.5$). For R+S and R+M OM s, there was indication of less bias when EM s estimated covariate effects (rather than assume none) and when the correct process error type was assumed.

Detailed results revealed that bias of $\hat{\beta}_M$ was negligible for all EM process error assumptions fitted to R and R+M OM when there was contrast in fishing pressure and low error in population observations, but the matching EM process error assumption was also important for EMs fit to R+S OM (Figures S4 to S6). For those OM, any attributes related to covariate process error and effects on M had little effect on bias.

Standard error estimation bias

Median errors indicated strong negative bias across all OM process error types (Figure S7). Lower error in population observations provided better median errors (closer to 0). For R+S OM, better median errors occurred when the EM process error assumption was correct.

Detailed results for each OM and EM configuration indicated little bias in certain scenarios where OM had temporal contrast in fishing pressure and low error in population observations (Figures S8 to S10). For R and R+M OM with those conditions, all EM process error assumptions provided median errors close to zero except for OM with the strongest true covariate effect ($\beta_E = 0.5$) and autocorrelation and high variability of the true covariate time series. For R+S OM with those conditions, only EMs with the correct process error assumption exhibited low (absolute) median error.

Confidence interval bias

Across all simulations, rates of 95% CI coverage were generally poor and indicated a negative bias with a range of 83-87% for the different OM process error types (Figure 5). Contrast in OM fishing history and lower error in population observations generally indicated improved CI coverage. However, better coverage occurred for R EMs fit to R+S OM with higher error in population observations.

Detailed results indicated reliable coverage for some scenarios (Figures S11 to S13). For R OM with contrast in fishing history and lower error in the covariate observations, EMs with any process error assumptions and that estimated the covariate effect showed reliable coverage. The same result occurred for R+S OM as long as the EMs assumed the correct process error type. However, coverage was generally unreliable for any of the EMs fit to R+M OM.

Covariate effect inferences

Estimation bias

Like $\hat{\beta}_M$, median errors of $\hat{\beta}_E$ across all simulations for each OM process error configuration were negative but close to 0 (-0.1 to -0.07; Figure 6). Better estimation (median error closer to 0) occurred with lower uncertainty in population or covariate observations and higher temporal variation in the true covariate. For R OM with the largest true covariate effect, estimation error was poor unless there was also high temporal variation and low observation

error for the covariate. For R+S OM, we also found lower estimation error when the EM process error assumption matched. We observed low median error across all simulations for R+M OM with low error in covariate observations, but there were some combinations of factors that provided median errors near zero when the R+M OM had greater error in the covariate observations.

The detailed results for all OM and EM configurations demonstrated that the median errors get worse with increased values for the true β_E for many scenarios without low error in population and covariate observations and contrast in fishing pressure, indicating that the estimates remain close to zero when the true $\beta_E > 0$ (Figures S14 to S16). The detailed results also indicated little bias in covariate effect estimation regardless of the OM and EM process error configuration when EMs assumed median M was known and OM had lower error in covariate observations and greater temporal variability of the true covariate.

Standard error estimation bias

Median errors across all simulations for a given OM process error configuration were strongly negative (-0.8 to -0.6), but combinations of OM and EM attributes resulted in improved values closer to zero (Figure S17). For all OM process error types, lower error in covariate observations provided better estimation (median error closer to 0).

Examining the detailed results for each OM and EM configuration showed little indication of bias in the same OM scenarios where there was little indication of bias for $\hat{\beta}_E$ (Figures S18 to S20). However, in the R+S OM with lower error in covariate observations and greater temporal variability of the true covariate, the EMs that had the correct process error as well as known median M performed best.

Confidence interval bias

Over all simulations, rates of 95% CI coverage indicated negative bias with rates ranging 85-88% for the different OM process error configurations (Figure 7). For R OM, higher rates of CI coverage occurred with lower error in covariate observations, but when that error was higher, higher rates were associated with OM where no covariate effect was assumed ($\beta_E = 0$). For R OM with some covariate effect and higher error in covariate observations, higher rates of coverage occurred with higher error in the population observations. For R+S OM, higher rates of CI coverage were observed for EMs that assumed R+S or R+M process errors.

The more detailed results for each OM and EM configuration showed that good CI coverage can be obtained for all of the investigated covariate effect sizes when there was low error in covariate and population observations, high covariate temporal variability and contrast in fishing pressure for R and R+S OM. The EM process error configuration was not a factor for the R OM, but R+S or R+M EM configurations were necessary for R+S OM (Figures S21 to S22). However, CI coverage was negatively biased for all EM process error configurations fit to R+M OM with these conditions even though little bias was observed in estimation of β_E or its standard error (Figure S23). Examining the estimates for each

simulated data set when R+M EMs were fit to R+M OMs where we observed little estimation bias, there appears to be a positive correlation of the covariate and standard error estimates such that estimates less than the true value had negatively biased standard error estimates which would make CIs too small (Figure S24).

Terminal year natural morality rate

Estimation bias

For R and R+S OMs, the median estimation error is zero for terminal year M when EMs assumed β_M was known because of a large number of fits for OM with no temporal variability in M and the EMs assumed no covariate effects were estimated and median M was known (Figure 8). However, median error for the corresponding subset of fits in R+M OMs where there was always temporal variability in true terminal M was also close to zero. When β_M was estimated, median errors were near zero for many EMs in R OMs. Median error was problematic for this subset of EMs in R+S OMs, but there was indication of lower bias when R+S or R+M EMs were fit. The detailed results for each OM and EM attribute (Figures S25 to S27) further show that there was little evidence of bias for R+S OM when error in population observations was low and there was contrast in fishing pressure and the EM process error configuration was correct. In R+M OM, median errors indicated little bias overall with temporal contrast in fishing pressure, although detailed results demonstrated the best reliability when there was also lower error in population observations.

Estimation accuracy

Like bias, regression trees for RMSE showed better accuracy when EMs assumed β_M was known rather than estimated (Figure S28). Better accuracy was also generally associated with lower error in population observations and temporal contrast in fishing pressure. For R+S OM, R+S EMs provided better accuracy than incorrect process error assumptions.

Using correlation to measure accuracy of terminal year M estimation provides a different perspective with true covariate variability (R and R+S OM) and population observation uncertainty (R+M OM) defining the primary branches (Figure S29). For R and R+S OM, better correlation occurred with higher covariate variability, lower error in covariate observations, and when the EM estimated covariate effects for those OM. Like RMSE, median correlation improved when median M was known.

Terminal year spawning stock biomass

Estimation bias

Although primary branches for all OM process error types were defined by fishing history type, differences between them in median errors was small (Figure 9). For R+S and R+M

OMs, there was indication of less bias when EMs assumed β_M was known rather than estimated like terminal year M . For R+S OMs with constant fishing pressure and β_M estimated, less bias was indicated when the EM process error assumption was correct.

Estimation accuracy

Whether accuracy was measured by RMSE or correlation of estimated and true values, regression trees demonstrated better accuracy with contrast in fishing pressure, lower error in population observations, and when EMs assumed β_M was known (Figures S30 and S31). Unlike terminal year M , SSB estimates were generally highly correlated with the true SSB values when there was contrast in fishing pressure and low error in population observations regardless of the OM and EM process error and covariate effect assumptions a(Figures S32 to S37).

Discussion

Our simulation study demonstrated that reliable inferences about covariate effects on natural mortality require low observation error, contrast in fishing pressure, and large temporal variability in the environmental covariate. Under these conditions, reliable AIC-based selection and estimation of environmental effects on M can be possible even when the process error was mis-specified (e.g., R and R+S EMs fit to R+M OM). Under those same conditions, reliable estimation of standard errors and CI coverage was also possible for R and R+S OMs especially when the EM process error type was correct. However, there was poor CI coverage for R+M OMs even though there was little bias in estimation of the effect or standard errors, possibly related to correlation of the estimated effects and standard errors. Cadigan et al. (2024) found CI coverage to be biased for SSB and F estimation in a state-space model in some scenarios but they attributed the poor coverage to bias in Hessian-based standard error estimation and their simulations held any process error random effects constant. Consideration of other methods of calculating CIs may be warranted (e.g., Boyko and O’Meara 2024). Previous research has shown that estimation of a constant M parameter requires contrast in time series and informative data (Lee et al. 2011), so it is unsurprising that estimation of covariate effects on M also requires relatively good information via more precise observations and higher contrast in the covariate time series.

We found AIC unreliable for determining the source of process error for EMs fit to R+M OMs where marginal temporal variability was specified as $\sigma_M = 0.3$. Miller et al. (2026) investigated R+M OMs with two levels of M process-error variability ($\sigma_M \in \{0.1, 0.5\}$) and only found AIC able to accurately distinguish R+M process errors with the higher level of process-error variability. If AIC accuracy increases with σ_M , our results together would suggest the minimum level of variability for reliable detection may be with σ_M somewhere between 0.3 and 0.5. In our results and those by Miller et al. (2026), inaccurate selection of AIC typically chose R EMs which would indicate the fitted R+M EMs would estimate no variability in the M process errors. Future studies like ours where R+M OMs are simulated

with greater variability in M process errors would better inform reliability of covariate effect inferences under such scenarios.

Deriso et al. (2008) attempted to estimate process errors as well as covariate effects with M for Pacific herring but similarly found no variability in M , suggesting there was too much uncertainty in the available observations relative to the true temporal variability in M . Our results showed AIC-based selection of covariate effects could be accurate even when the EM process error assumption was incorrect and that R EMs were often selected for fits to R+M OMs probably because of low variability simulated in M process errors. This suggests that the findings of Deriso et al. (2008) on covariate effects for Pacific herring may also be robust to true low variability in M . However, they did not account for uncertainty in covariate observations, some of which would probably have substantial uncertainty (e.g., competition and predation covariates). We found higher covariate observation uncertainty resulted in true covariate effects to be less detectable using AIC but we did not investigate the implications for incorrectly assuming no covariate uncertainty for covariate inferences.

It was important to consider RMSE and correlation of estimates with the true values for reliable estimation of terminal year M because summaries of relative errors demonstrate unbiasedness that is not relevant because the unbiasedness is an artifact of the distributions of true values being centered at an assumed constant value or near an estimated constant value in the EM (e.g., R and R+S EMs that have a temporally constant M fit to OMs with temporally varying M). Despite the inability of AIC to distinguish M process errors, reliable estimation of terminal M was possible in some scenarios regardless of the EM process error assumption. To achieve little bias and high correlation of terminal M estimates required larger variability in the covariate (when OM and EMs included the effect on M) along with lower population and covariate observation error. It was also more difficult when EMs estimated β_M rather than treating it as known which suggests relative changes in M may be estimated more reliably than the absolute scale of M (c.f., Zhang et al. 2020). However, there was little correlation of terminal year M estimates and true values for R+M OM without covariate effects for any combination of OM and EM attributes (Figure S34). Therefore, our results suggest estimating terminal M is easier when the temporal variation is due to effects of highly variable covariates than unexplained variation in M . Like the results for AIC-based selection, this may be a function of the level of variability in M we assumed for R+M OM.

Accurate estimation of terminal year SSB was more robust than terminal year M . When OM had contrast in fishing pressure and low error in population observations, there was little bias and high correlation of terminal year SSB estimates regardless of whether OM and EMs included covariate effects. However, for R+S OM, it was important for the EM process error configuration to be correct. Fortunately, our results and those by Miller et al. (2026), suggest AIC-based model selection is accurate for this type of process error. However, the reliability of the SSB estimation does break down in the less ideal scenarios when there is higher error in population observations, and lack of contrast in fishing pressure (e.g., Figures S38 to S40).

The R+S and R+M EMs both include process error for the apparent survival of cohorts and would be expected to perform similarly, and they did in our simulations when the OM

and EM matched. However, we found that the accuracy for model output like SSB and F that are important for management was generally worse using R+M EMs for R+S OM than using R+S EMs for R+M OM in the high information OM with contrast in fishing pressure and low error in population observations. Additionally, questions of the appropriate M for biological reference points raised when using R+M EMs because M explicitly is varying over time (e.g., Legault and Palmer 2016). We therefore recommend following the suggestion from Li et al. (2024) to prefer R+S EMs over R+M EMs unless strong biological evidence is present to support a particular R+M EM. Such support could be found through both biological understanding (e.g., Trijoulet et al. 2020) as well as statistical properties such as a large delta AIC for R+M compared to R+S associated with greater temporal variability in M (Miller et al. 2026). We note that our results are based on OM simulated without autocorrelation in the process errors, although it has often been found in applications to specific stocks (e.g., Cadigan 2016; Stock et al. 2021). Therefore, studies examining selection of models with autocorrelation and their evaluation via management performance in closed-loop simulations are important next steps.

The pattern of improved inferences using state-space models in the presence of higher contrast in fishing pressure, lower observation error and greater process error variability that emerges from our work here and by Miller et al. (2026) is consistent with expectations from statistical theory. State-space models are more reliable when observation error is lower than process error (Auger-Méthé et al. 2016), and, more generally, maximum likelihood estimation is less biased and more accurate as the information in the data increases (Neyman and Scott 1948; Kiefer and Wolfowitz 1956). However, the greater complexity of state-space assessment models over the more well-studied linear and Gaussian state-space models makes determining sufficient levels of precision in observations difficult. Statistical information available to the state-space assessment model could be increased with longer time series of observations, more time series (e.g., multiple indices of abundance and corresponding age-composition data sets), or more precise observations of a given time series of observations (e.g., greater index observation precision or more sampling for age composition). Indeed, there are many commercially important stocks where there may be just a single survey time series or temporal gaps in surveys or age-composition observations. We expect less reliability of state-space assessment models in these scenarios with lower statistical information similar to our simulation scenarios with higher observation error. Our simulations also assumed that the variance of aggregate population observations and covariate observations was known in the EMs whereas estimates of these parameters are often used in practice. Further research of these “data-poorer” scenarios is required and it will be important to conduct self-test simulations (where the OM and EM are the same) on a case-by-case basis to ensure the reliability of models used to manage commercially important fish stocks.

The ability to accurately infer covariate effects on M in some situations indicates that such investigations may be fruitful. The ability to make inferences could improve further when WHAM is extended to incorporate tagging data (Miller et al. 2025). Tagging data can greatly inform M estimation (Pollock et al. 1991; Hampton 2000) and it should also have a similar effect on estimation of covariate effects or unexplained temporal variation in M . Given our findings and planned future WHAM development, we expect investigations of, and accounting for, temporal variation in M to become more common within the fisheries

stock assessment process. At the same time, it will be equally important to conduct research that will improve our understanding of how best to measure the depletion of stocks and determine catch advice for these stocks where we can no longer assume M to be constant.

Acknowledgements

This work was funded by NOAA Fisheries Northeast Fisheries Science Center. We thank the associate editor, two anonymous reviewers, and Emily Liljestrand for constructive comments on previous drafts that led to a much improved manuscript.

Competing Interests

The authors declare there are no competing interests.

Data and code availability

Data used in this study are simulated and can be replicated using the code available at https://github.com/timjmillier/SSRTWG_M_cjfas, which is archived at doi:10.5281/zenodo.20496170.

References

- Aitchison, J., and Shen, S.M. 1980. Logistic-normal distributions: Some properties and uses. *Biometrika* **67**(2): 261–272. doi:10.2307/2335470.
- Auger-Méthé, M., Field, C., Albertsen, C.M., Derocher, A.E., Lewis, M.A., Jonsen, I.D., and Mills Flemming, J. 2016. State-space models’ dirty little secrets: Even simple linear Gaussian models can have estimation problems. *Scientific reports* **6**(1): 26677. doi:10.1038/srep26677.
- Boyko, J.D., and O’Meara, B.C. 2024. Dentist: Quantifying uncertainty by sampling points around maximum likelihood estimates. *Methods in Ecology and Evolution* **15**(4): 628–638. doi:10.1111/2041-210X.14297.
- Breiman, L., Friedman, J.H., Olshen, R.A., and Stone, C.J. 1984. Classification and regression trees. Chapman; Hall/CRC, New York, NY USA. doi:10.1201/9781315139470.
- Britten, G., Brooks, E.N., and Miller, T.J. 2026. Factors affecting the inference on stock-recruitment relationships in state-space assessment models. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences*. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2025-0210.
- Brodziak, J., Cadrin, S.X., Legault, C.M., and Murawski, S.A. 2008. Goals and strategies for rebuilding New England groundfish stocks. *Fisheries Research* **94**(3): 355–366. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2008.03.008.

- Cadigan, N.G. 2016. A state-space stock assessment model for Northern cod, including under-reported catches and variable natural mortality rates. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **73**(2): 296–308. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2015-0047.
- Cadigan, N.G., Albertsen, C.M., Zheng, N., and Nielsen, A. 2024. Are state-space stock assessment model confidence intervals accurate? Case studies with SAM and Barents Sea stocks. *Fisheries Research* **272**: 106950. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2024.106950.
- Carvalho, F., Winker, H., Courtney, D., Kapur, M., Kell, L., Cardinale, M., Schirripa, M., Kitakado, T., Yemane, D., Piner, K.R., Maunder, M.N., Taylor, I., Wetzel, C.R., Doering, K., Johnson, K.F., and Methot, R.D. 2021. A cookbook for using model diagnostics in integrated stock assessments. *Fisheries Research* **240**: 105959. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2021.105959.
- Collier, Z.K., Zhang, H., and Soyoye, O. 2022. Alternative methods for interpreting Monte Carlo experiments. *Communications in Statistics - Simulation and Computation*: 1–16. doi:10.1080/03610918.2022.2082474.
- Deriso, R.B., Maunder, M.N., and Pearson, W.H. 2008. Incorporating covariates into fisheries stock assessment models with application to Pacific herring. *Ecological Applications* **18**(5): 1270–1286. doi:10.1890/07-0708.1.
- Gonzalez, O., O’Rourke, H.P., Wurpts, I.C., and Grimm, K.J. 2018. Analyzing Monte Carlo simulation studies with classification and regression trees. *Structural Equation Modeling: A Multidisciplinary Journal* **25**(3): 403–413. doi:10.1080/10705511.2017.1369353.
- Haltuch, M.A., and Punt, A.E. 2011. The promises and pitfalls of including decadal-scale climate forcing of recruitment in groundfish stock assessment. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **68**(5): 912–926. doi:10.1139/f2011-030.
- Hampton, J. 2000. Natural mortality rates in tropical tunas: Size really does matter. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **57**(5): 1002–1010. doi:10.1139/f99-287.
- Harwell, M., Kohli, N., and Peralta-Torres, Y. 2018. A survey of reporting practices of computer simulation studies in statistical research. *The American Statistician* **72**(4): 321–327. doi:10.1080/00031305.2017.1342692.
- Hoyle, S.D., Maunder, M.N., Punt, A.E., Mace, P.M., Devine, J.A., and A’mar, Z.T. 2022. Preface: Developing the next generation of stock assessment software. *Fisheries Research* **246**: 106176.
- Johnson, K.F., Councill, E., Thorson, J.T., Brooks, E., Methot, R.D., and Punt, A.E. 2016. Can autocorrelated recruitment be estimated using integrated assessment models and how does it affect population forecasts? *Fisheries Research* **183**: 222–232. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2016.06.004.
- Kiefer, J., and Wolfowitz, J. 1956. Consistency of the maximum likelihood estimator in the presence of infinitely many incidental parameters. *The Annals of Mathematical Statistics* **27**(4): 887–906.
- Kristensen, K., Nielsen, A., Berg, C.W., Skaug, H., and Bell, B.M. 2016. TMB: Automatic differentiation and Laplace approximation. *Journal of Statistical Software* **70**(5): 1–21.
- Lee, H.-H., Maunder, M.N., Piner, K.R., and Methot, R.D. 2011. Estimating natural mortality within a fisheries stock assessment model: An evaluation using simulation analysis based on twelve stock assessments. *Fisheries Research* **109**(1): 89–94. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2011.01.021.
- Legault, C.M., and Palmer, M.C. 2016. In what direction should the fishing mortality target

- change when natural mortality increases within an assessment? *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **73**(3): 349–357. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2015-0232.
- Legault, C.M., Wiedenmann, J., Deroba, J.J., Fay, G., Miller, T.J., Brooks, E.N., Bell, R.J., Langan, J.A., Cournane, J.M., Jones, A.W., and Muffley, B. 2023. Data-rich but model-resistant: An evaluation of data-limited methods to manage fisheries with failed age-based stock assessments. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **80**(1): 27–42. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2022-0045.
- Li, C., Deroba, J.J., Berger, A.M., Goethel, D.R., Langseth, B.J., Schueller, A.M., and Miller, T.J. 2026a. Random effects on numbers-at-age transitions implicitly account for movement dynamics and improve performance within a state-space stock assessment. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **83**: 1–18. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2025-0092.
- Li, C., Deroba, J.J., Miller, T.J., Legault, C.M., and Perretti, C. 2026b. Guidance on bias-correction of log-normal random effects and observations in state-space assessment models. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **83**: 1–11. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2025-0093.
- Li, C., Deroba, J.J., Miller, T.J., Legault, C.M., and Perretti, C.T. 2024. An evaluation of common stock assessment diagnostic tools for choosing among state-space models with multiple random effects processes. *Fisheries Research* **273**: 106968. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2024.106968.
- MacKinnon, D.P., Warsi, G., and Dwyer, J.H. 1995. A simulation study of mediated effect measures. *Multivariate Behavioral Research* **30**(1): 41–62. doi:10.1207/s15327906mbr3001_3.
- Magnusson, A., and Hilborn, R. 2007. What makes fisheries data informative? *Fish and Fisheries* **8**(4): 337–358. doi:https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1467-2979.2007.00258.x.
- Miller, T.J., Britten, G., Brooks, E.N., Fay, G., Hansell, A., Legault, C.M., Li, C., Muffley, B., Stock, B.C., and Wiedenmann, J. 2026. An investigation of factors affecting inferences from and reliability of state-space age-structured assessment models. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences*. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2025-0149.
- Miller, T.J., and Brooks, E.N. 2021. Steepness is a slippery slope. *Fish and Fisheries* **22**(3): 634–645. doi:10.1111/faf.12534.
- Miller, T.J., Curti, K.L., and Hansell, A.C. 2025. Space for WHAM: A multi-region, multi-stock generalization of the Woods Hole Assessment Model with an application to black sea bass. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **82**: 1–26. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2025-0097.
- Miller, T.J., Hare, J.A., and Alade, L. 2016. A state-space approach to incorporating environmental effects on recruitment in an age-structured assessment model with an application to Southern New England yellowtail flounder. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **73**(8): 1261–1270. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2015-0339.
- Miller, T.J., and Hyun, S.-Y. 2018. Evaluating evidence for alternative natural mortality and process error assumptions using a state-space, age-structured assessment model. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **75**(5): 691–703. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2017-0035.
- Miller, T.J., and Stock, B.C. 2020. The Woods Hole Assessment Model (WHAM). Available from <https://timjmilller.github.io/wham/>.
- Myers, R.A. 1998. When do environment–recruitment correlations work? *Reviews in Fish*

- Biology and Fisheries **8**(3): 229–249. doi:10.1023/A:1008828730759.
- NEFSC. 2022a. Final report of the haddock research track assessment working group. Available at https://s3.us-east-1.amazonaws.com/nefmc.org/14b_EGB_Research_Track_Haddock_WG_I
- NEFSC. 2022b. Report of the American plaice research track working group. Available at https://s3.us-east-1.amazonaws.com/nefmc.org/2_American-Plaice-WG-Report.pdf.
- NEFSC. 2024. Butterfish research track assessment report. US Dept Commer Northeast Fish Sci Cent Ref Doc. 24-03; 191 p. doi:10.25923/a8xr-q625.
- Neyman, J., and Scott, E.L. 1948. Consistent estimates based on partially consistent observations. *Econometrica* **16**(1): 1–32. doi:10.2307/1914288.
- Nielsen, A., and Berg, C.W. 2014. Estimation of time-varying selectivity in stock assessments using state-space models. *Fisheries Research* **158**: 96–101. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2014.01.014.
- Pedersen, M.W., and Berg, C.W. 2017. A stochastic surplus production model in continuous time. *Fish and Fisheries* **18**(2): 226–243. doi:10.1111/faf.12174.
- Pollock, K.H., Hoenig, J.M., and Jones, C.M. 1991. Estimation of fishing and natural mortality when a tagging study is combined with a creel survey or port sampling. *American Fisheries Society Symposium* **12**: 423–434.
- Punt, A.E. 2023. Those who fail to learn from history are condemned to repeat it: A perspective on current stock assessment good practices and the consequences of not following them. *Fisheries Research* **261**: 106642.
- Stock, B.C., and Miller, T.J. 2021. The Woods Hole Assessment Model (WHAM): A general state-space assessment framework that incorporates time- and age-varying processes via random effects and links to environmental covariates. *Fisheries Research* **240**: 105967. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2021.105967.
- Stock, B.C., Xu, H., Miller, T.J., Thorson, J.T., and Nye, J.A. 2021. Implementing two-dimensional autocorrelation in either survival or natural mortality improves a state-space assessment model for Southern New England-Mid Atlantic yellowtail flounder. *Fisheries Research* **237**: 105873. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2021.105873.
- Szuwalski, C.S., Ianelli, J.N., and Punt, A.E. 2018. Reducing retrospective patterns in stock assessment and impacts on management performance. *ICES Journal of Marine Science* **75**(2): 596–609. doi:10.1093/icesjms/fsx159.
- Therneau, T., and Atkinson, B. 2025. Rpart: Recursive Partitioning and Regression Trees. Available from <https://github.com/bethatkinson/rpart>.
- Thorson, J.T., and Minto, C. 2015. Mixed effects: A unifying framework for statistical modelling in fisheries biology. *ICES Journal of Marine Science* **72**(5): 1245–1256. doi:10.1093/icesjms/fsu213.
- Trijoulet, V., Albertsen, C.M., Kristensen, K., Legault, C.M., Miller, T.J., and Nielsen, A. 2023. Model validation for compositional data in stock assessment models: Calculating residuals with correct properties. *Fisheries Research* **257**: 106487. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2022.106487.
- Trijoulet, V., Fay, G., and Miller, T.J. 2020. Performance of a state-space multispecies model: What are the consequences of ignoring predation and process errors in stock assessments? *Journal of Applied Ecology* **57**(1): 121–135. doi:10.1111/1365-2664.13515.
- Vaida, F., and Blanchard, S. 2005. Conditional Akaike information for mixed-effects models. *Biometrika* **92**(2): 351–370. doi:10.1093/biomet/92.2.351.
- Wang, S., Cadigan, N.G., and Benoît, H.P. 2017. Inference about regression parameters using

- highly stratified survey count data with over-dispersion and repeated measurements. *Journal of Applied Statistics* **44**(6): 1013–1030. doi:10.1080/02664763.2016.1191622.
- Wiedenmann, J., Free, C.M., and Jensen, O.P. 2019. Evaluating the performance of data-limited methods for setting catch targets through application to data-rich stocks: A case study using northeast U.S. Fish stocks. *Fisheries Research* **209**(1): 129–142. doi:10.1016/j.fishres.2018.09.018.
- Yee, T.W. 2008. The VGAM package. *R News* **8**(2): 28–39. Available from <https://journal.r-project.org/articles/RN-2008-014/>.
- Yee, T.W. 2015. Vector generalized linear and additive models: With an implementation in R. Springer, New York, NY USA. doi:10.1007/978-1-4939-2818-7.
- Zhang, F., Rideout, R.M., and Cadigan, N.G. 2020. Spatiotemporal variations in juvenile mortality and cohort strength of Atlantic cod (*Gadus morhua*) off Newfoundland and Labrador. *Canadian Journal of Fisheries and Aquatic Sciences* **77**(3): 625–635. doi:10.1139/cjfas-2019-0156.

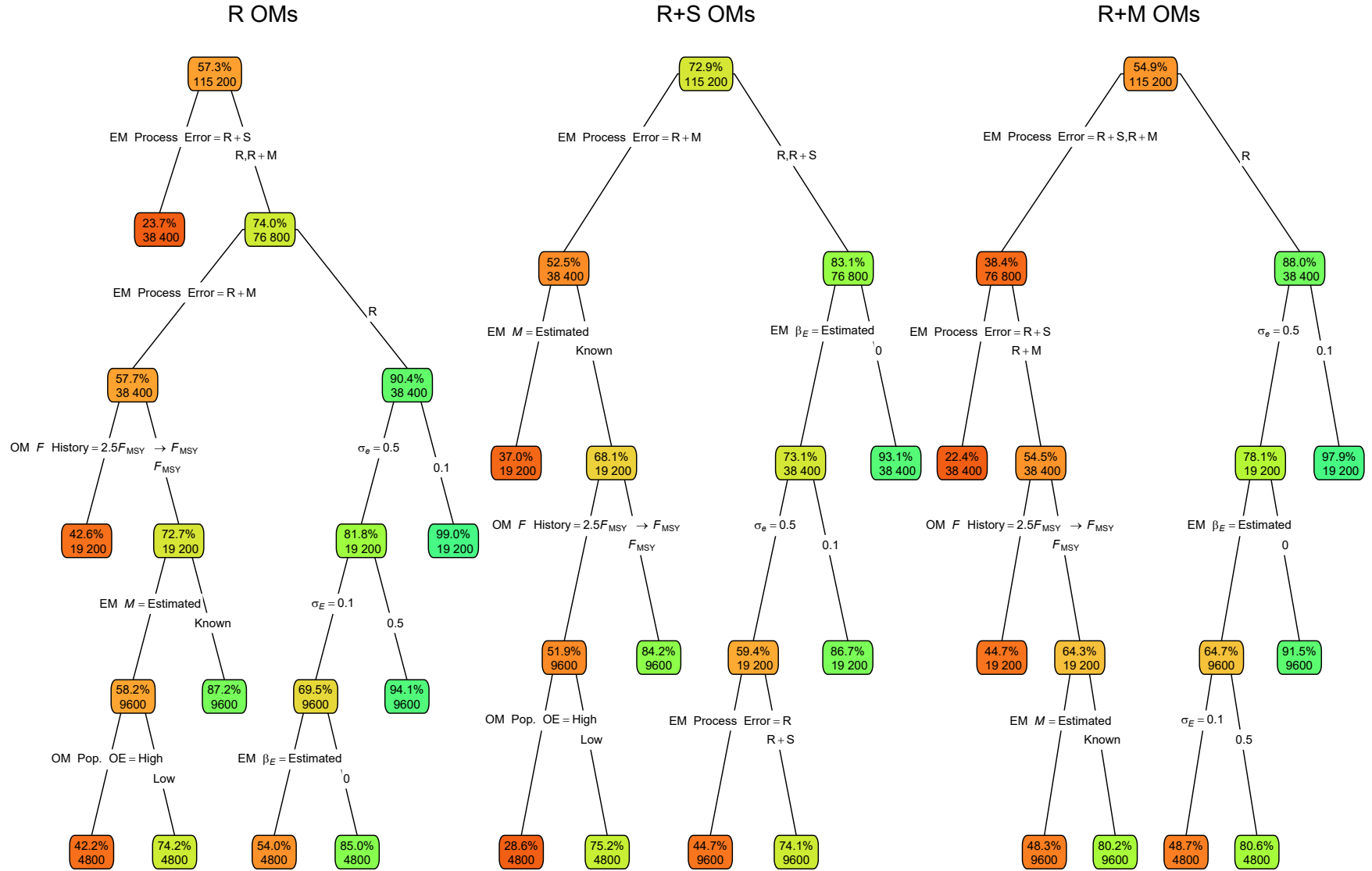


Fig. 1. Classification trees indicating primary factors determining convergence as defined by providing Hessian-based standard errors for operating models (OMs) with process error on recruitment only (R), recruitment and apparent survival (R+S), or recruitment and natural mortality (R+M). Nodes denote percent convergence (top) and number of fits (bottom) for the corresponding subset. Lower or higher convergence rates are indicated by more red or green polygons, respectively. See Table S1 for description of OM and estimating model (EM) factors defining nodes and branches.

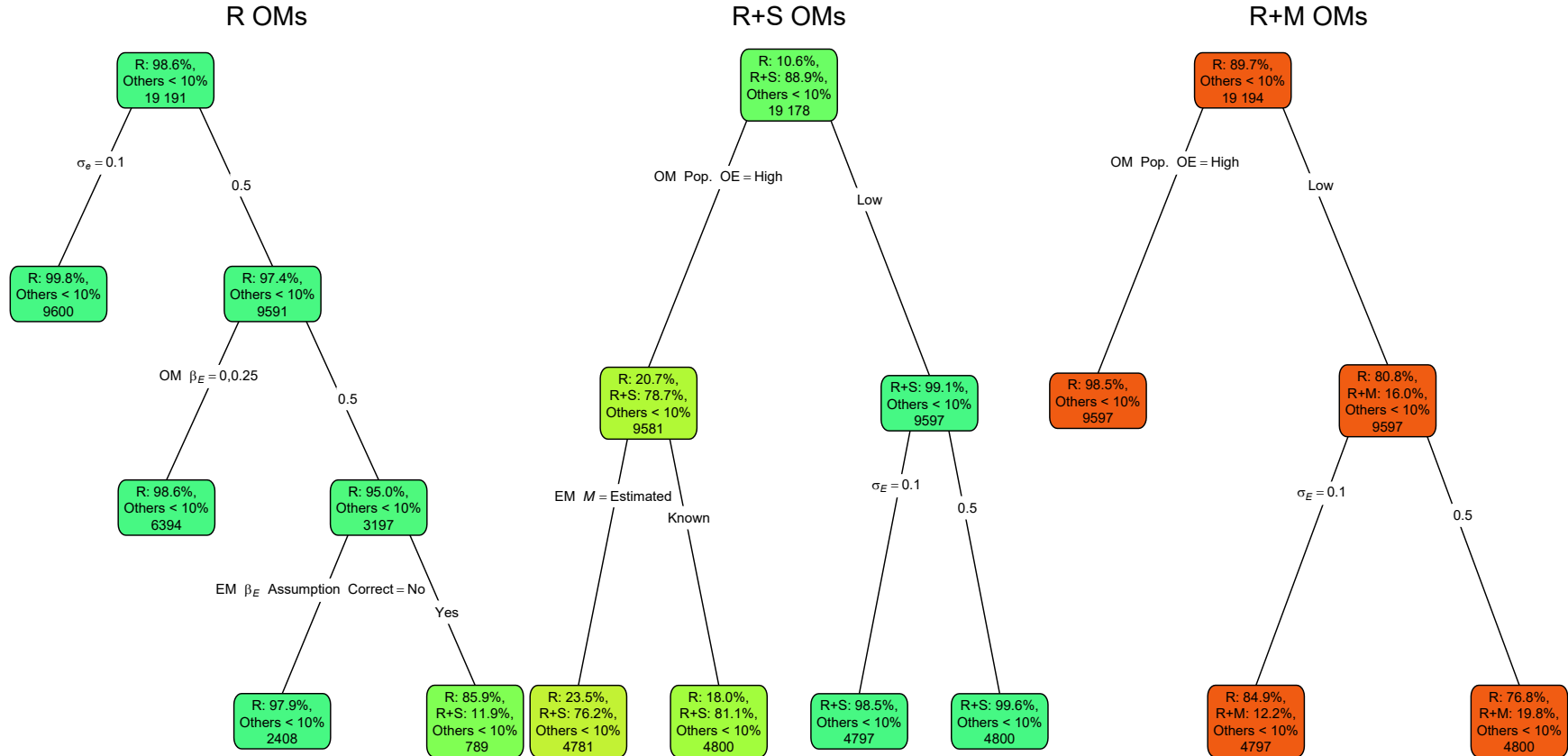


Fig. 2. Classification trees for which estimating model process error assumption provides the lowest AIC. Each node shows the percentages (if greater than 10%) of estimating model fits with a given process error assumption having the lowest AIC for the corresponding subset. Process error assumptions with percentages less than 10% are grouped as “other.” Lower or higher accuracy are indicated by more red or green polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

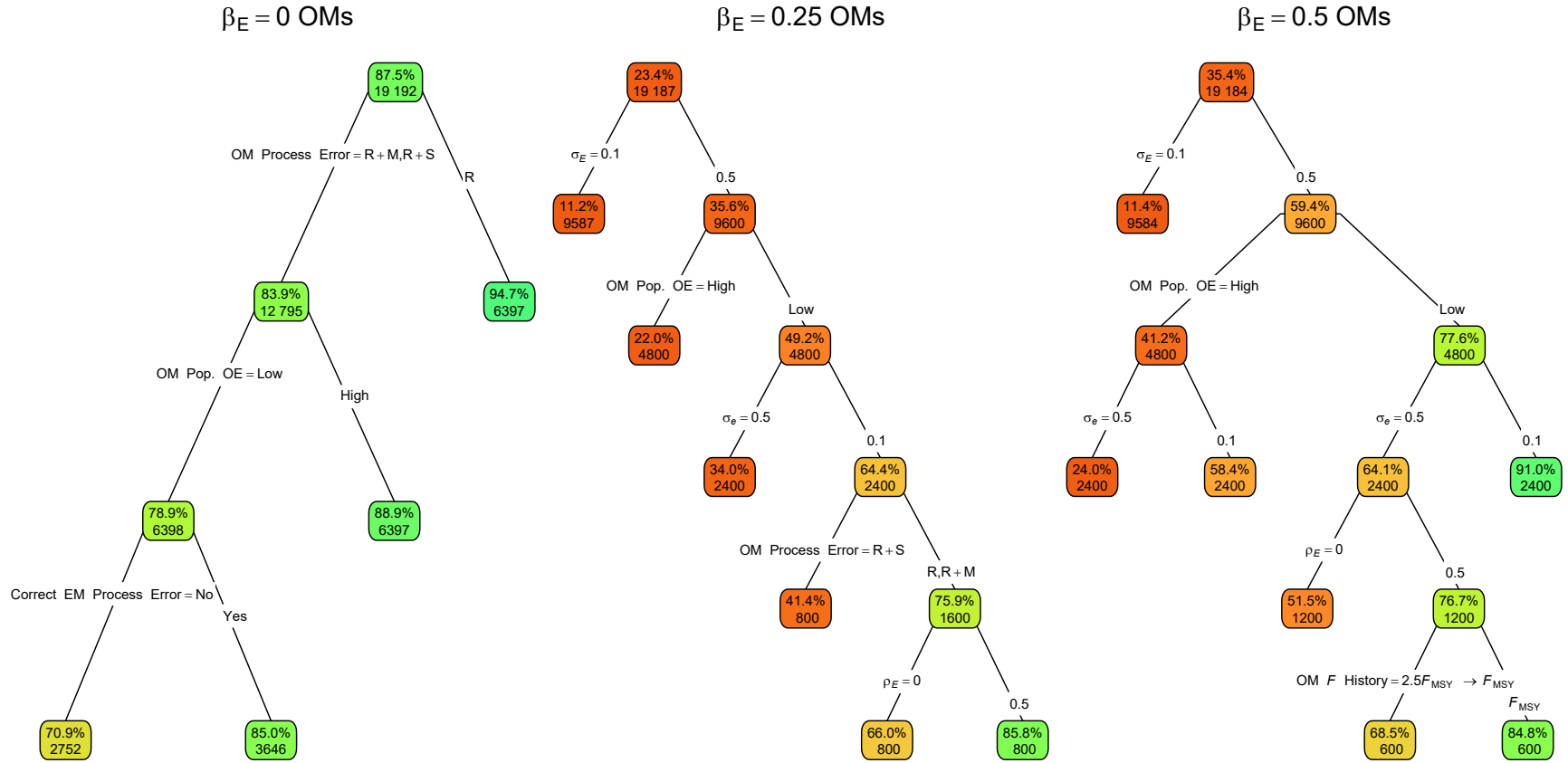


Fig. 3. Classification trees for whether the correct estimating model assumption for covariate effect on M (no effect with OM $\beta_E = 0$ or estimated effect when OM $\beta_E > 0$) provides the lowest AIC for OMs assuming values for β_E of 0, 0.25, and 0.5. Nodes denote the percentage of estimating models with the correct assumption and lowest AIC for the corresponding subset. Lower or higher accuracy are indicated by more red or green polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

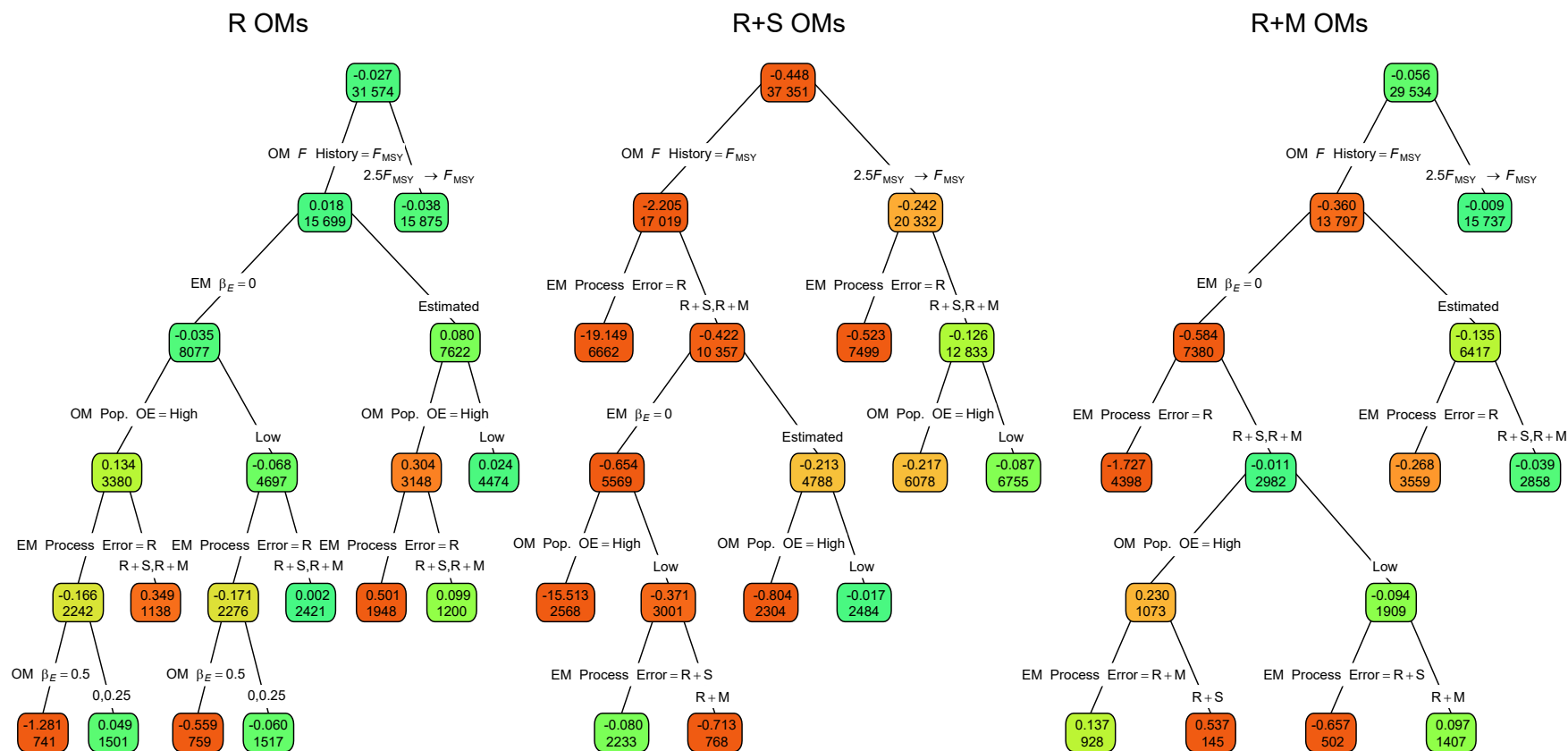


Fig. 4. Regression trees for estimation error of the median M parameter (β_M). Each node shows the median error for the corresponding subset. Lower or higher absolute median errors are indicated by more green or red polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

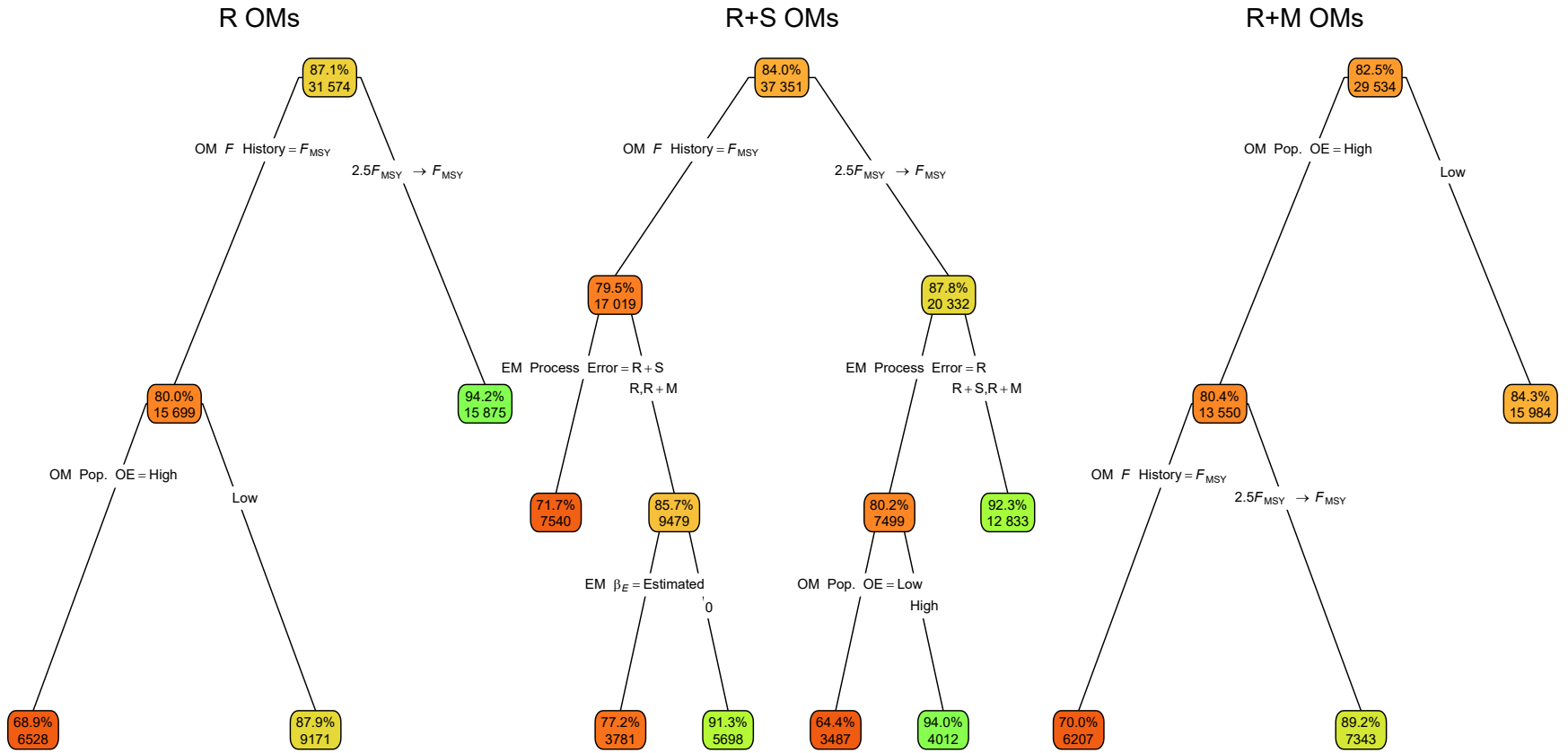


Fig. 5. Classification trees for whether confidence intervals (CIs) for the estimated median M parameter (β_M) included the true value. Each node shows the percentage of CIs that include the true value for the corresponding subset. Higher or lower percentages are indicated by more green or red polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

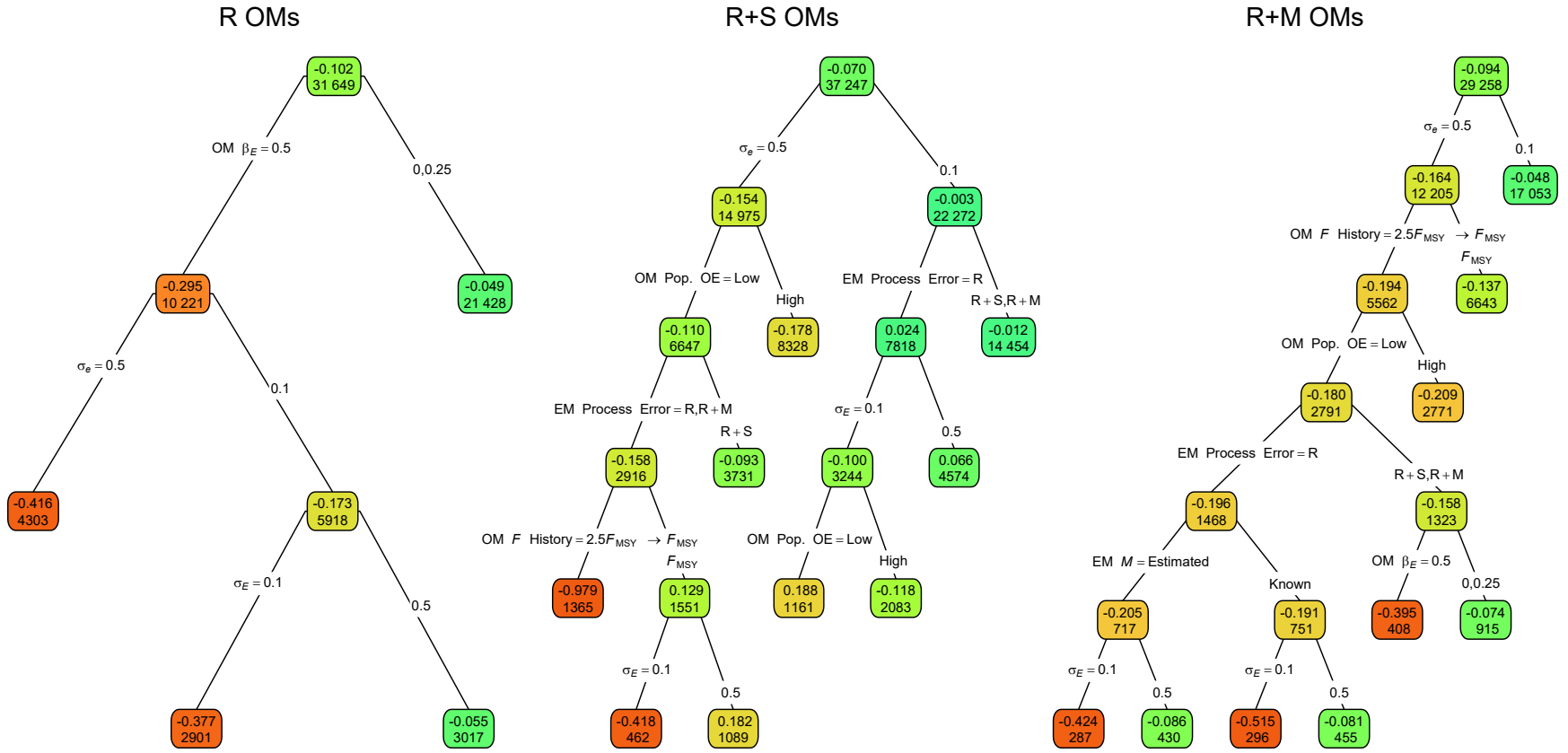


Fig. 6. Regression trees for estimation error of the covariate effect on M ($\hat{\beta}_E$). Each node shows the median error (top) for the corresponding subset. Lower or higher absolute median error are indicated by more green or red polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

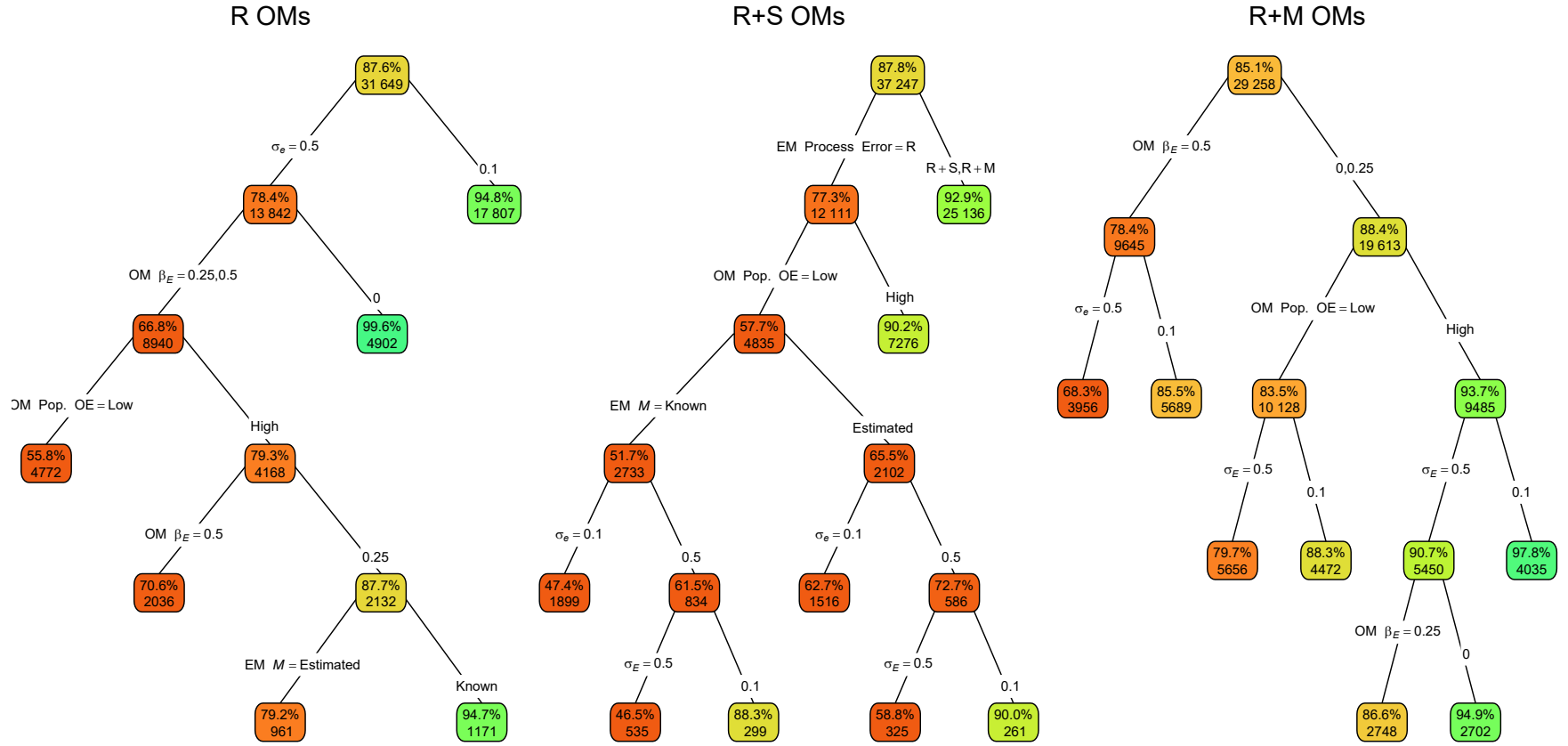


Fig. 7. Classification trees for whether confidence intervals (CIs) for the estimated covariate effects on M (β_E) included the true value. Each node shows the percentage of CIs that include the true value for the corresponding subset. Higher or lower percentages are indicated by more green or red polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

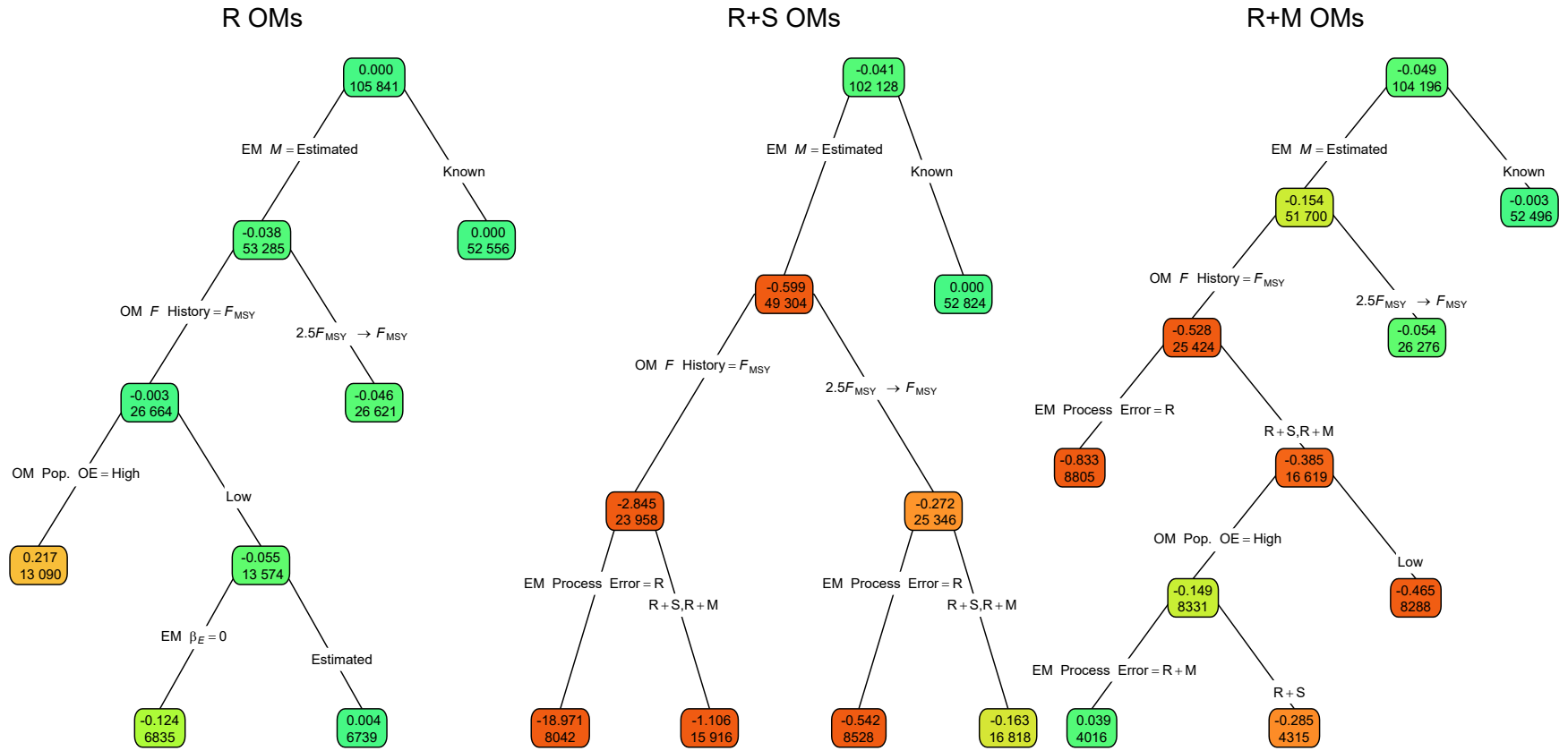


Fig. 8. Regression trees for estimation error of terminal year M as measured by Eq. 2. Each node shows the median error for the corresponding subset. Lower or higher absolute median errors are indicated by more green or red polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.

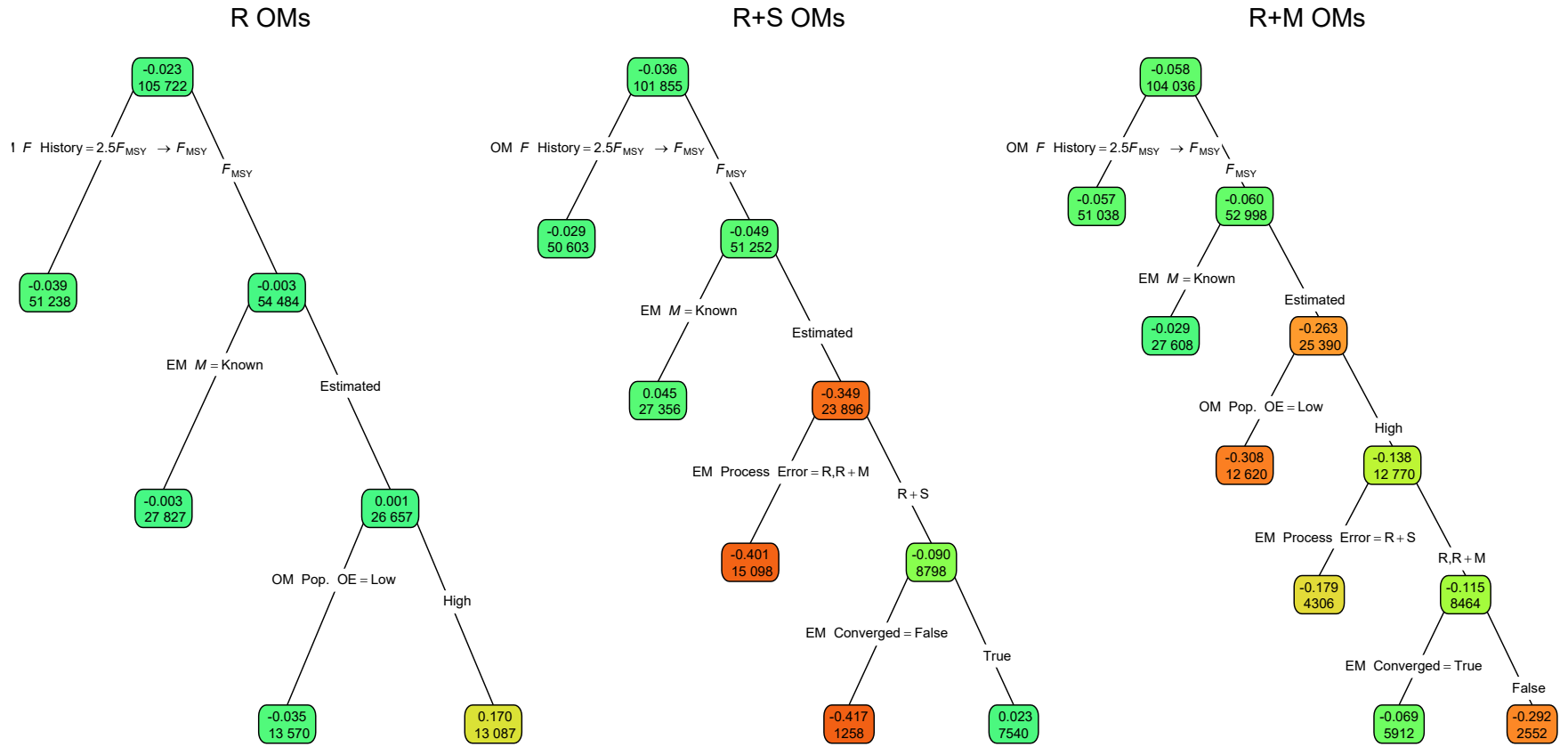


Fig. 9. Regression trees for estimation error of terminal year SSB as measured by Eq. 2. Each node shows the median error for the corresponding subset. Lower or higher absolute median errors are indicated by more green or red polygons, respectively. See Figure 1 caption and Table S1 for further details.